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16 Spanish in contact with Quechua

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In the Andean region of South America, Spanish is in contact with Quechua in Bolivia, Ecuador, and Peru, and, to a lesser extent, in southwestern Colombia, northern Argentina, and northeastern Chile. In this chapter, I present an account of the social ecology of this contact situation in order to introduce the reader to the main macro- and micro-sociolinguistic factors defining this contact in the 21st century, as well as to the main linguistic features that characterize it. Emphasis is placed on the linguistic variants which have emerged in this region as part of the variety known as Andean Spanish – the dialect of the region. The chapter concludes with a discussion of the emergence of a new stage in the evolution of this contact situation, in which Andean Spanish and Quechua are in contact not only with one another, but also with varieties of non-Andean Spanish in the region and, more recently, with Spanish varieties in Spain and the United States. The discussion describes the social conditions fostering the diffusion of Andean Spanish beyond the Andean sierra, and some of the features that have entered non-Andean varieties of Spanish.

1 Introduction

The Spaniards ventured into South America in the early 16th century, seeking the riches of the Inca Empire, which covered an enormous territory – from the Caquetá River in southern Colombia in the north, to the Maule River in Chile in the south, and bordering the Amazonian lowlands in the east. Quechua was the official language of the Incas, and had been used as the language of their communication with the various smaller kingdoms and ethnic groups that had been conquered (Cerrón 1987). The Inca aristocracy used a different Andean language amongst themselves, Puquina, now extinct. The contact between Quechua, Puquina, and Aymara seems to have been intense and prolonged during the period of the Inca Empire (13th -16th centuries).[1] This long-term bilingualism and intense contact seems to explain the modern structural convergence features found in Quechua and Aymara (Mannheim 1991:43-49, 53-58; Cerrón 1994), making the Andes another convergence area (cf. Hock and Joseph 1996). The discussion of Spanish in contact with Quechua in this chapter includes contact with Aymara.

The Andean languages still spoken today include Quechua, which has by far the most speakers (around ten million), Aymara (2.5 million speakers), Chipaya (around 1,000 speakers), Jaqaru (slightly less than 1,000 speakers), and Callawalla (20 speakers), as can be seen in Table 1.[2]

Country	Andean languages	Speaking population
Peru	Quechua, Aymara, Jaqaru	5.5 million
Bolivia	Quechua, Aymara, Chipaya, Callawalla	4.7 million
Ecuador	Quichua[3]	1.5 million
Northern Argentina	Quechua, Aymara	1 million
Southern Colombia	Inga Quechua	23,000
Northwestern Chile	Quechua, Aymara	9,000

Table 1 Andean languages in South America

Map 1 indicates the regions in which Andean languages are still spoken.

Map 1 Andean languages in South America

Quechua is the most spoken Amerindian language in the Americas. Since most speakers of Andean languages are also speakers of Spanish – the majority language in all Andean countries – it would be fair to say that Quechua-Spanish bilingualism involves more speakers than all but two other cases of bilingualism in the Americas, after Spanish-English (in the United States), and French-English (mainly in Canada) bilingualism. Due to daily contact in the last century between Quechua-Spanish bilinguals (second-language speaking and two-first-language speaking) and Spanish monolinguals, the Spanish dialect known as Andean Spanish has arisen.[4]

1.1 The Colonial period

During the first centuries of the colonial period (16th and 17th centuries), the Spanish administration used Quechua as the lingua franca for political objectives to communicate with and impose their control over the indigenous population and to facilitate the transmission of Christianity. The rigid social differentiation of the Spanish from the indigenous societies restricted bilingualism to a small range of individuals. Among the Spaniards, it was mainly merchants and the clergy who were bilingual in the Andean languages. Interethnic communication took place mainly in economic transactions, such as those related to the collection of produce grown in neighboring lands worked by indigenous peasants to support the emerging urban settlements of the Spaniards' society. In addition, merchants and Spanish administrators used Quechua to communicate with caciques (indigenous leaders), as a way to exert control over the indigenous population. The clergy studied and used Andean languages to christianize the indigenous population. In short, merchants, administrative officials, and the clergy all used Quechua for instrumental functions.

In the middle of the 17th century, the Spanish king changed the Empire's language policy and declared Hispanization compulsory, in hopes of guaranteeing loyalty to the crown (Mannheim 1991:70). Upper-class Spaniards, however, continued to communicate in Quechua with the indigenous population, to maintain their socioeconomic and linguistic dominance over them. Stronger mandates against Quechua language and culture ensued in the 18th century with the Bourbon reforms. The political and social control of the Spanish crown, however, would come to an end in the early 19th century as liberation movements in South America led to the emergence of independent nations. Nonetheless, Spanish speakers, although a numerical minority, continued to maintain sociopolitical control after independence from Spain.

During the colonial period, indigenous-language speakers also learned Spanish for instrumental functions. These were mainly the children of the indigenous elite, who attended schools especially created for them to learn Spanish, Catholicism, music, and, in general, to be educated in Spanish 'ways' (Galdo 1970). The Spaniards' ultimate purpose was to keep the indigenous elite on their side, and to have indirect influence, through them, on the members of the indigenous community, who greatly outnumbered them. Other indigenous bilinguals were those who entered religious life, although they were never allowed to climb the religious hierarchy. Finally, additional indigenous people who acted as links between the two societies were local escribanos, or helpers in the medical centers, etc. The ethnic origin of these bilinguals limited them to the lowest ranks of their professions and of the Spanish society (Mannheim 1991:65).

The presence of a bilingual community is a necessary condition for a new contact dialect to develop. However, indigenous bilinguals in the colonial period were only found in low-ranking occupations and, thus, served as connectors between the two societies that were living side by side in the same territory. Bilingualism was restricted and an individual phenomenon. That is, they were not present in all levels of society, nor did they interact widely with Spaniards. Just how limited the possibilities for intermingling of the two communities was is clear from the powerful social descriptors of this dual-society situation: the walls constructed in the early 17th century around the main Spanish urban centers in the Peruvian Viceroyalty, and the separate living quarters constructed on the outskirts of the urban centers for the indigenous people who worked in the cities during the day, but were locked up at night. A comparative linguistic analysis of writings of Spaniards and of bilinguals of indigenous origin during the colonial period between 1595 and 1746 confirms the effects of such severely restricted contact between the two groups; that Spanish data from this period cannot be used as evidence of early stages in the formation of the Andean Spanish dialect (Escobar 2007a, 2007d). The fact that the emergence of a contact dialect requires extensive social bilingualism (Winford 2003:33), and a

high degree of intimacy of social interactions (cf. Holms 2004), strongly suggests that the emergence of Andean Spanish is a phenomenon of the 20th century. Only then, population movements and sociopolitical changes, among other social conditions, have given way to extensive social bilingualism and social mobility (cf. Escobar 2007c).

1.2 The Modern Andes

Spanish is in contact with Andean languages mainly in Peru, Bolivia, and Ecuador. Quechua and Aymara are spoken in the Andes, in many cases by monolinguals or Quechua or Aymara-dominant bilinguals, as well as by native speakers of both Spanish and Quechua or Aymara (2L1).

In the Peruvian constitution of 1993 (published in both Spanish and Quechua), the country is recognized as a multiethnic and multilingual nation whose citizens have the right to use either Spanish or their native indigenous language in all official events and proceedings (through an interpreter, if needed). The Ecuadorian constitution of 2008 recognizes the rights of indigenous people to their ancestral land and its administration, to their sociopolitical organization, and to the preservation of their language and cultural heritage. Spanish is declared the official language, while indigenous languages are declared part of the national cultural heritage, and as official languages of the indigenous groups. The new 2009 constitution of Bolivia goes even further. After recognizing the ethnic, cultural, and linguistic plurality of the country, it recognizes the sociopolitical organizations of all indigenous groups, as well as the right to the maintenance of their languages and cultures, and declares official Spanish and all indigenous languages spoken in the country. Colombia's constitution of 1991 recognizes the ethnic and cultural diversity of the country, and although Spanish is the official language of the country, the indigenous languages are official only in regions where their speakers are majority. In the remaining countries with Andean language-speaking populations – Chile and Argentina – no reference is made in the constitutions to the official recognition of either Quechua or Aymara (see each country's constitution for further information). The Chilean Indigenous Law, however, does recognize and respect the country's Amerindian languages and cultures.

Despite these sociopolitical changes, Spanish is still the language of government, education, media, and social institutions. Most researchers describe the sociolinguistic situation as one in which Quechua speakers are shifting to Spanish (cf. King and Hornberger 2004; Hornberger and Coronel-Molina 2004).[5] Hornberger and Coronel-Molina remark that "Quechua does not appear to be making a strong comeback in the large cities as one might expect considering the large number of Quechua immigrants" (2004:25), and suggest that cultural transmission has been interrupted in the Andes because of modernization, democratization, and globalization (2004:29).

Nonetheless, social and political changes in the last two decades seem to be contributing to a new era. These changes have led to the presence of Quechua-Spanish bilinguals on the political stage. This is apparent in the official recognition of CONAIE ('Confederation of Ecuadorean Indigenous Nationalities') and of the Pachacutik indigenous political party in Ecuador. The election of an Aymara-Spanish bilingual as president in Bolivia, and the power of the provinces in each of the three countries to elect their own representatives to parliament are also changes in the direction of a new role for indigenous leaders, their communities, and their languages in the Andean region. Gleich (2004, 2009) has noted the emergence of new public functions for Aymara and Quechua in the last years in modern Bolivia in education, government, and commerce. Although this has created tensions with non-Andean Spanish speakers in the upper classes and in political power (especially in Peru), the tensions themselves are evidence of the evolution in the sociolinguistic profiles of these countries.

Additional developments are contributing to a change in attitudes towards Andean languages and their speakers, especially towards young, urban, educated individuals of Andean ancestry. This emerging new sociolinguistic situation will be discussed in section 3, which considers the ethno-linguistic vitality of Andean languages and its influence on Spanish varieties spoken in the region.

1.3 Andean Spanish

Early accounts of contact features in the Spanish of the Andes can be found in the studies of Benvenutto Murrieta (1936) in Peru and Toscano Mateus (1953) in Ecuador. Studies flourished in the 1970s, after the Andean countries began to recognize – officially in the case of Peru, unofficially elsewhere – the multicultural and multilingual profiles of their societies (cf. for Bolivia, Albó 1974; for Ecuador, Guevara 1972; for Peru, A. Escobar 1972 and A. Escobar et al. 1975).

From a linguistic perspective, Andean Spanish is a dialect spoken mainly in the Andean region of the various countries. In defining it as a dialect, we are acknowledging that it has native speakers who grew up speaking Spanish in this region. These native speakers include both monolingual speakers as well as what is called 2L1 bilinguals in language-acquisition studies, that is, individuals who have two native languages – Quechua and Spanish. However, since this region is also home to Andean languages, native speakers of Andean Spanish are in daily contact with second-language speakers of Andean Spanish, who are native speakers of Quechua (or Aymara). Due to migration patterns within these countries, all types of speakers of Andean Spanish are also found outside of the Andes. This makes it necessary for researchers to carefully consider the sociolinguistic background of their subjects when studying Andean Spanish. Next, we focus on the features of Andean Spanish, with a short review of second-language features. Considering that Andean Spanish refers to a dialect spoken in different and immediately adjacent regions in the Andes, some of its linguistic features vary across these regions.

2 Linguistic features of Andean Spanish

Features of Andean Spanish are defined as those that distinguish this dialect from other varieties of Spanish. It is important to note that there are features found only in second-language speakers of Spanish who have Quechua as their first language, and not in Andean Spanish (see Escobar 1994a). This second-language variety, which is found throughout the Andes alongside Andean Spanish, has been called interlect (A. Escobar 1976, 1978) or castellano motoso (Cerrón 1990, 2003). It is described as a second-language or interlanguage variety which has low social standing and is characterized by features that are typical of second-language speakers (A. Escobar 1978:37-39).[6] An illustrative example on the phonological level is the behavior of Spanish mid vowels [e,o] and high vowels [i,u], as in señor [siñúʒ] ‘mister, sir’, pelota [pilúta] ‘ball’, and chico [tʃíku] ‘boy’. This is attributable to the fact that Quechua has three phonemic vowels /a,i,u/, with [e,o] as allophones of the respective high vowels in contexts after uvular /q/, while Spanish has five phonemic vowels /a,e,i,o,u/.

Other second-language features that are found as regular patterns in this interlanguage sociolect, but not in Andean Spanish, are the omission of grammatical expressions, such as articles (escribe _ carta ‘he/she writes a letter’), prepositions (la casa _ ingeniero ‘the house of the engineer’), the lack of gender and number agreement (la escuela nocturno ‘night school’, niños sucio ‘dirty children’) and of number agreement in verbs (es necesario que ellos habla su

quechua pues ‘it is necessary that they speak their Quechua, then’), and morphological regularization (e.g. verb conjugations: ponieron < pusieron ‘they put’, hacerán < harán ‘they will do’).[7]

Second-language speech is also characterized by a higher incidence of borrowings from Quechua, which seems to resemble instances of code-switching (examples taken from Alberto Escobar 1978:36) (1).

(1)	a. ratitulla bienes	‘you come fast’
	b. hamuy pe.	‘come, TAG’
	c. binikámun	‘he/she is coming (bini < Sp. venir ‘to come’)’

Features found in Andean Spanish are classified here according to type. Considering that not all features have been studied throughout the Andean region, features mentioned here must have been reported in at least two of the four mentioned countries (Ecuador, Peru, Bolivia, and northern Argentina).

2.1 Lexical borrowing and code-switching

Lexical borrowings are common in contact situations, especially cultural borrowings. Quechua cultural borrowings commonly found in the Andes refer to the flora and fauna of the region as well as to local social organization, food, agriculture, clothing, folklore, and religion (cf. Mejías 1980: 22-23; Adelaar and Muysken 2004:590-591). Most of these borrowings entered Spanish during the colonial period (mainly nouns), and can be found in chronicles and documents of the time (cf. Mejías 1980). In later centuries, other borrowings entered Spanish, some examples of which are shown in Table 2. Later borrowings are mainly non-basic vocabulary items for which Spanish also has a word, but the dialect exhibits a preference for the borrowed term.

Cultural borrowings						
Flora / Food						
	choclo	‘corn’	charqui	‘dried meat’	canchita	‘popcorn’
	papa	‘potato’	concho	‘sediment’	zapallo	‘squash’
	quinua	‘quinoa’	palta	‘avocado’		
Fauna						
	condor	‘condor’	alpaca	‘alpaca’		
	cuy	‘guinea pig’	puma	‘puma’		
Other						
	chakra	‘ranch’	soroche	‘altitude sickness’	cancha	‘large outdoor space’
	ojota	‘sandal’	huayco	‘mud slide	puna	‘high altitudes’
	pampa	‘plateau’				
Other borrowings						
	tambo	‘small inn’	ñano	‘male child’	chancar	‘to flatten’
	pucho	‘cigarrette butt’	pisco	‘grape brandy’	caucho	‘rubber’
	caracha	‘skin infection’	calato	‘naked’	carca	‘body dirt’
	guagua	‘infant’	carpa	‘tent’	quena	‘quena’

Table 2 Quechua borrowings in Spanish

Guevara (1972) reports loanblends in the Spanish of Ecuador, e.g. cachicaldo 'broth with salt', chiricaldo 'cold broth', cungapaño 'cloth for the neck of newborns', viejoñawi 'old-looking, or eye of an old person', galloruni 'stone in the form of a rooster'. Notice that the Quechua expression (underlined) can be the element on the left or on the right, but that the nucleus is always last.[8]

Code-switching between Spanish and Quechua has been less studied. Courtney (1998) explores this topic in children, and Shappeck (2009) studies the discursive function of code-switching in everyday interactions in Cuzco. This is an area that merits more attention, especially now that a growing urban bilingual population is emerging.

2.2 Grammatical borrowing

Borrowing of grammatical expressions has been documented mainly in Ecuador and Bolivia. Some examples are also found in Peru, but this type of borrowing does not seem to be as extended in use in Peru as it is in the other two regions (cf. Muysken 1984; Mendoza 1991a; Lipski 1994; Granda 2001; Wölck 2009).

Grammatical borrowings include the Quechua plural marker for nouns, -kuna (2), the first person possessive marker –y (3), and the diminutive –cha (4).

(2)	oveja-kuna	'sheep (pl.)'
(3)	vidita-y	'my life (vocative, as endearment)'
(4)	mama-cha	'Miss'

Discourse markers are used more extensively, especially in Ecuador. These include the topic/focus marker –ga (-ka/-qa) (5), the derivative marker used for courtesy –ri (6), and the negative emphatic –tan (7).

(5)	Ahí-ka barrio chiquito	'there-FOC small neighborhood'
(6)	Espera-ri-me	'Please, wait for me.'
(7)	Nada más-tan	'No more!'

Fernández Laváque (1998a) describes a special case in northern Argentina, the use of the expression [yoqa], which she suggests is a combination of the Spanish first person pronoun yo and the Quechua focus marker -qa –, the only example of a Quechua suffix used in the Spanish of that region.

2.3 Phonological features

Phonological characteristics of Andean Spanish include those features which distinguish this dialect from other varieties of Spanish. The most prominent is the phonological differentiation of /ʝ/ and /ʎ/, also found in Paraguayan Spanish and in northern Spain. In these varieties, vaya 'go (IMP)' and valla 'hurdle', as well as cayó 'fell' and calló 'kept silent' are minimal pairs.

Other features include the assibilation of /r/, which is also found in Central Mexican Spanish. In the Andean countries, however, it still has some negative connotation (de los Heros 2001; Alvord et al. 2005; Klee and Caravedo 2006).[9]

Andean Spanish favors maintenance or strengthening of consonants, such as is the case with /s/ in coda position, e.g. Cu[s]co, casa[s] 'houses', and the strengthening of /x/ before /e,i/, e.g. [x]inete 'rider', mu[x]er 'woman'.[10] The opposite tendency is found with unstressed vowels, which tend to be weakened or omitted, e.g. ahorita [oríta] 'in a short while (literally: 'little now'), todos [tóðs] 'everybody', pues [ps] 'well (discourse marker)'. O'Rourke (2008)

explains this phenomenon as related to a difference of rhythm between Andean varieties and non-Andean varieties of Spanish.[11]

2.4 Morphosyntactic features

Linguistic features at higher levels of grammar are more complex to describe, as they have not been studied in depth across the region.[12] Characteristic of this variety are the use of the conditional in the protasis and apodosis of conditional sentences (8), the omission of third person object clitics in answering questions or when the direct object is dislocated to the left of the utterance (9), and the use of animate leísmo (10).[13]

(8) Si tendría permiso, vendría mañana.
'If I had permission, I would come tomorrow.'

(9) a. ¿Sabes que el señor Quispe se murió? – No ___ he sabido.
'Did you know that Mr. Quispe died? – No, I did not know.'
b. Al maestro ___ saludó en la plaza.
'He/she greeted the teacher in the plaza.'

(10) Gritó que les había visto.
'He/she shouted that he/she had seen them.'

Some controversy surrounds the neutralization of third person object pronouns to lo, without number, gender, or case agreement (cf. Toscano Mateus 1953; Lozano 1972; Pozzi-Escot 1972; A. Escobar 1978; Muysken 1985; Godenzzi 1986, 1991; Granda 2001). Although it is reported in both second-language and native Spanish, it is not clear what parameters apply to Andean Spanish. More research is needed regarding this morphosyntactic feature.

Other important characteristics include expressions and syntactic constructions that have discursive and/or pragmatic function. Among them, the frequent use of the diminutive found in nouns and adjectives, but also in gerunds (corriendito, said of a child running), numerals (unito 'one' or 'only one'), adverbs (lejitos 'far away'), and pronouns (ellita 'she, the little one') (cf. for dialectal comparison of use, see Clements 2009:186-188). It can accompany nouns and adjectives for modesty (tengo mi chacrita 'I have my small ranch') and deferential courtesy (Escobar 2001). Courtesy is also expressed in the frequent use of titles with first names, e.g. Doctor Gustavo, Señor Pedro, Don Manuel, Licenciado Juan.

Other morphosyntactic features which seem redundant, but have discursive function, include the use of direct object clitics with their nominal referent (also found in Porteño Spanish), e.g. vémelo el asado 'watch the roast', lo visité a mi papá 'I visited my father', and – mainly found with the third person, but also with first-person expressions – the presence of a possessive determiner with its genitive phrase (su padre de mi padre 'my father's father', lit.: 'his father of my father', mi chacra de mí 'my ranch', lit.: 'my ranch of me').

Nouns can also appear preceded by a demonstrative and a possessive expression (este mi ganado 'these my animals', esos mis hijos 'those my children'), similar to uses in Central America. The pronoun se is commonly found with intransitive verbs of movement and verbs of change in all grammatical persons (anoche mismo me estuve soñando mi vestido blanco 'only last night, I was dreaming myself of my white dress'; example from Muntendam 2006).

Another widespread feature is the use of the present subjunctive for past events in nominal dependent clauses with a non-agent subject (Pidieron que visite esa escuela 'they requested that he visit that school'; Sessarego 2008). Spatial deictic adverbials also tend to appear with the redundant preposition en 'in', e.g. en ahí 'in there', en acá 'in here'.

2.5 Semantic and discursive features

Other, less overt, features are related to semantic and pragmatic functions, which can be said to fall under Heine and Kuteva's category of conceptual transfer of grammatical categories (2005:4). This section includes innovative functions found in verbal and adverbial expressions used in Andean Spanish, which derive from grammaticalization processes triggered by the contact situation.

Innovative semantic functions not used in other varieties of Spanish but attested for similar expressions in other languages include the use of estar + GERUND with present function (¿en qué parte de Estados Unidos está viviendo Susana? 'Where in the United States is Susana living?'), and with telic verbs (el sábado estoy saliendo de vacaciones 'on Saturday I am leaving on vacation') (Haboud 2005; Escobar 2009).

A more-studied case is the present perfect, used more frequently in Andean Spanish than in other Latin American varieties. Although also very common in some varieties of Peninsular Spanish (Alicante, Madrid; Schwenter 1994; Howe 2006), the functions seem to be different. While the present perfect contrasts with the preterite in most varieties of Spanish, it contrasts with the pluperfect in the Andean region. The pluperfect functions as a reportative when it appears with a finite or gerundive expression of the verb decir 'to say' within the topic unit (dice, que dice, diciendo).[14]

In varieties in which the pluperfect (in combination with decir) can have a discursive reportative function, the present perfect contrasts with this verbal form in the narrative by expressing the evidential function of 'experienced' information, which resembles evidential distinctions found in Quechua (Cerrón Palomino 1987:287-289).[15] The contrast of the pluperfect for reported information and the present perfect to mark personal experience has been documented in Bolivia and in Peru. For Ecuadorean Andean Spanish, however, Bustamante (1991) finds that the present perfect has a reportative function instead. This finding would suggest that in this variety of Andean Spanish, the present perfect does not contrast with the pluperfect, as happens in the other varieties. The use of the synthetic future and future perfect can also convey evidential function in Peruvian Andean Spanish – that of inference (see Escobar 1994b).

Some adverbial expressions have evidential function, as is the case with pues 'well' to mark experienced information (Zavala 2001; Manley 2007). This expression can appear in combination with siempre 'always', sí 'yes', and así 'this way' to reinforce its meaning (example taken from Manley 2007:204-206) (11).[16]

(11) Porque para el trabajo, hay veces con la gente que no sabe hablar quechua, no puedes conversar <u>así</u> <u>sí</u> <u>pues</u>.
'Because for work, there are times with the people who don't know how to speak Quechua, you can't converse <u>this way</u> <u>yes</u> <u>well</u>.'

Other adverbials with innovative functions are siempre 'always' for todavía 'still' (no ha llegado siempre 'he/she has still not come') and de repente 'suddenly' for expressing the epistemic modal sense of possibility of quizá 'perhaps'.

2.6 Patterns of use

Following Heine and Kuteva (2005), differences in patterns of use are understood here as the increased frequency of patterns which might be minority patterns in other varieties of Spanish, but have emerged as frequent patterns in Andean Spanish.

Some characteristics mentioned earlier can also fall in this category. Included are redundancy patterns, such as the use of the possessive before the noun with the presence of its genitive counterpart (su hermano de mi prima 'lit.: 'her/his brother of my female cousin'), the high frequency of the diminutive in discourse, the frequent use of the third-person clitic pronoun with the nominal expression present, and Andean intonational contour patterns, which have only been studied for Peru until now (O'Rourke 2005).

Constituent order in Spanish is somewhat flexible, but Andean Spanish is described as favoring adverbials (12, 13) and objects (14) in preverbal position, with adverbials and prepositional phases tending to appear at the beginning of utterances. These patterns – characterized as marking focus – have been reported for Ecuador, Peru, Bolivia, and northern Argentina.[17]

(12) Harto hemos correteado.
'We have run a lot.' (lit.: 'A lot we have run.')

(13) De las 5 de la mañana hasta las 11 ha hecho trabajar.
'from 5 in the morning to 11, he has made [us] work.'

(14) Unas cuantas palabras entiendo.
'I understand a few words.' (lit.: 'A few words I understand.')

Finally, there is the frequent use of analytical verbal expressions in Andean Spanish, including the use of hacer 'to do' + INFINITIVE for causative (15), and of saber 'to know'+ INFINITIVE to mark habitual aspect (16).[18]

(15) A las cinco de la mañana yo hago hervir la chicha.
'At five in the morning I put the chicha (a corn-based drink) to boil.'

(16) Sabía visitarme los sábados.
'He used to visit me on Saturdays.'

In Ecuador, it is common to find dar 'to give' + GERUND to mark benefactive (17; from Haboud 1998), and venir 'to come' + GERUND to mark perfective aspect (18; from Olbertz 2003).

(17) Dame haciendo el pan mientras yo lavo. (Haz el pan para beneficio mío…)
'Make (lit.: give me making) the bread for my benefit, while I wash.'

(18) [una joven entra con un bebé llorando, comenta lo sucedido]
Así viene cayendo, recién es.
'[as a young woman enters with a crying baby, she comments on what has happened:]
'This way, he/she fell (lit.: comes falling), it just now took place.'

These gramaticalized expressions found in this variety seem to have established themselves and show increasing use.

Additional patterns of use include the preferential use of dequeísmo with nominal adjuncts (la razón era de que tenía novia 'the reason was that he had a fiancé'; Escobar 2007b), and a generalized use of que 'that' as a subordinate marker (Escobar 2005).

3 Sociolinguistic profile of Andean Spanish

The degree of influence from Quechua in Andean Spanish is a topic of ongoing discussion in the literature. Some features are described as direct structural calques from Quechua, such as preferred word order patterns, the use of decir 'to say' for reportative function, the diminutive for modesty and deferential courtesy, and intonation, to name a few. Nevertheless, all researchers agree that the features presented above are characteristic of Andean Spanish and distinguish this variety from other varieties of Spanish. Although semantic/pragmatic features of the languages involved (Quechua/Aymara and Spanish) and cross-linguistic evolutionary paths seem to explain the emergence of these contact features in this dialect, more research is needed to better understand their development.

Details of the social ecology (cf. Mufwene 2008) of the contact situation are also unclear, despite a considerable amount of published research on the subject. Here I will try to provide an overview of factors relevant to such a detailed discussion, and suggest that the influence of Quechua in this variety of Spanish occurs through the intense contact at the interactional and social-network levels in the society between second-language speakers of Spanish and native speakers of Andean Spanish (2L1 and L1). Moreover, I suggest that the diffusion of Andean Spanish contact features is intimately related to 1) the ethnolinguistic vitality of the Andean languages, which contributes to the diffusion of these contact features beyond the traditional Andean boundaries; 2) the growth of a Quechua-heritage speaker population, who are now reacquiring Quechua in response to an emerging change in attitudes towards Quechua and Andean Spanish; and 3) to the extension of the use of Quechua into new domains, both public and modern. New spaces beyond the traditional Andean boundaries include not only regions within the Andean countries where traditionally non-Andean Spanish varieties are spoken, but also new migratory destinations of Andean-Spanish speakers, such as Spain and the United States.

In what follows, I review macro- and micro-sociolinguistic factors which, in my opinion, are contributing to this change and to the propagation of these contact features.

3.1 Macro-sociolinguistic factors

UNESCO's 2003 document entitled Language vitality and endangerment contains a list of criteria considered by linguists and anthropologists to be the most relevant in determining the linguistic vitality of a language.[19] In the study of Andean Spanish and its social ecology, it is relevant to determine the ethnolinguistic vitality of Quechua and Aymara, since their linguistic vitality has an influence on the presence and size of the bilingual communities (L2 and 2L1), and on the contact speakers in these communities have with other (monolingual) speakers of Andean and non-Andean varieties of Spanish.

The UNESCO document contains nine criteria (Table 3). Four correspond to the sociopolitical context in which the language is spoken (i.e. macro-sociolinguistic factors). The remaining five concern the familial and other social networks of the speakers (i.e. micro-sociolinguistic factors).

Criteria	Categories	
Macro	Institutional support	1. Government language policy 2. Bicultural and bilingual education programs 3. Availability and access to written materials in the language 4. Language use in non-traditional public spaces (internet, mass communication)
Micro	Speakers	5. Intergenerational transmission of the language 6. Absolute numbers of and proportion of speakers within the total population 7. Percentage of the population speaking the language as a ratio of the total population.
	Language use	8. Private and public domain use of the language
	Language attitudes	9. Language attitudes must be positive

Table 3 UNESCO criteria for measuring the ethnolinguistic vitality of a language (2003).

At the macro level, it is important to assess the degree of governmental support for initiatives concerning the use and maintenance of the indigenous languages. These efforts help increase positive attitudes towards the indigenous languages and their speakers, and, by extension, towards native speakers of indigenous languages who speak the dominant language as a second language. In addition, these initiatives can ultimately affect attitudes towards the linguistic features found in the speech of second-language speakers of the dominant language, and towards dialectal features proper of the contact regions. With this in mind, a review of the macro-sociolinguistic profile of the Andean region is presented here, with a focus on Ecuador, Peru, and Bolivia, as no initiatives have been made for Quechua in Colombia or for Quechua and Aymara in Argentina or Chile.[20]

Language policy towards indigenous languages in Ecuador, Peru, and Bolivia has been varied. Although in the 1970s Peru was in the vanguard, naming Quechua as one of the official languages of the country, in 2010 it is Ecuador and, even more so, Bolivia, that have taken important steps in bringing indigenous languages and their speakers into the (inter)national arena, as mentioned earlier. An important step has been the official recent constitutional recognition of the multicultural and multilingual characteristics of the citizens and of the indigenous groups inhabiting these three nations.

To a great extent, these social changes were motivated by the political mobilization of indigenous organizations in the 1980s and 1990s, which led them to seek and ultimately obtain collective rights for indigenous populations and their participation in national policy discussions (Moya 1998; Guerrero 2005; López and Sichra 2008). Indigenous organizations have also had a pivotal role in changing government initiatives for education, from the traditional transitional bilingual education programs to bicultural and bilingual education programs, which are developmental and indigenous-language maintenance-oriented programs (López and Sichra 2008).[21] The inclusion of bicultural/bilingual education programs in national policies is also becoming more common in Latin America, although such programs are still restricted to primary education, and are only implemented when they are promoted by explicit demand and by the participation of indigenous educational councils in national policy and in the creation of materials (López and Sichra 2008:4, 6). New teachers are being trained in bicultural/bilingual education in Bolivia through the Program of Professional Development in Intercultural Bilingual Education for the Andean Countries (PROEIB Andes), housed at the Universidad Nacional de San Andrés in La Paz, which offers a Masters-level program and serves all six Andean countries.

Bottom-up initiatives promoted by the indigenous organizations as they acquire greater political presence are changing the traditional top-down sociopolitical dynamics of the countries. Consequently, although Spanish remains the main language used in government, education, media, and social institutions, social and political changes of the last two decades are contributing to a new and more favorable era for indigenous languages and their speakers.[22]

As a consequence of the sociopolitical changes, indigenous languages have expanded their use to public domains (cf. Gleich 2004, 2009; Hornberger 2006, 2009). Although this expansion is far from generalized, these new uses are found in educational institutions, official public spaces (government buildings, courts, etc.), social-service spaces (medical centers, banks, etc.), and the media (official documents, written press, radio, etc.), with progress along these lines greatest in Bolivia. Grenoble and Whaley (2006:23) find an additional domain of use to be highly relevant to the maintenance of indigenous languages. This refers to the possibility of freely using the indigenous language in the workplace, which they call the degree of economic integration of the indigenous language. Although in the Andean region, this is possible in skilled and unskilled manual-oriented occupations, it is starting to expand to non-manual and professional jobs, especially in the urban Andean centers.

The existence of government policies supporting indigenous languages and their speakers is necessary, in conjunction with some type of regional autonomy (Fishman 1991; UNESCO 2003; Grenoble and Whaley 2006:26). However, in order for change to take place, the members of the indigenous communities "must be highly invested in the outcome, need to control decision making, and construct the revitalization program which suits their ambitions, needs, and resources" (Grenoble and Whaley 2006:x,22), as recent changes in the Andean region show. Thus a new sociolinguistic situation seems to be arising in the Andean countries, in which the emergence of a new urban Quechua-Spanish bilingual population is actively being promoted. A more detailed view of this situation is provided in the next section.

3.2 Micro-sociolinguistic factors

At the micro-sociolinguistic level, the focus is on factors referring to the speakers: their numbers, their interactions, and their social networks, both familial and non-familial. Since Fishman's work in the 1960s with immigrant groups in the United States, intergenerational transmission has been regarded as the most important factor in the maintenance of a language. In the Andean region, most researchers are of the opinion that speakers of Quechua are shifting to Spanish (Haboud 2004; Hornberger and Coronel-Molina 2004:25; King and Hornberger 2004; Klee 2009). The evidence is the low – and, in some regions, falling – percentages of monolingual speakers of Andean languages, the low degree of mutual intelligibility between the different Quechua dialects (which, to the extent that it hinders communication in Quechua, fosters recourse to Spanish), the increasing use of Spanish in the home (to the detriment of the indigenous language), and linguistic attitudes toward their own language, which although positive, are mainly affective (Gleich and Wölck 1994). Additional social factors contributing to this conclusion are migration patterns from rural to urban areas, the rapid urbanization of the countries, and the homogenizing effects of globalization. Taken together, all these factors suggest, according to these authors, that the profile of the long-term maintenance of Quechua and other Andean languages in the region is weakening.

Although it is obviously important to have native speakers in order for language transmission to take place, it is also important to look beyond national statistics. This can be illustrated by examining data from the Bolivian census. The national count puts the percentage of the indigenous language population at 50%; this is already quite high, although López and Sichra (2008) put it at 62%, and UNICEF puts it at 71% (see Table 4).[23] Five of the nine departments of the country have indigenous populations making up between 60 and 81 percent

of the total population (Table 3.08.01, 2001 Census), and together, these five departments – La Paz, Cochabamba, Potosí, Chuquisaca, and Oruro – represent 66% of the total population of the country. Around 50% of the urban population of the country is of indigenous origin, which suggests that intensive contact takes place between native speakers of Quechua (with Spanish as L2) and native speakers of Spanish (with one or two native languages).[24] Since two of the three largest cities (La Paz and Cochabamba) are home to almost half of the population of the country, it is fair to say that language contact in Bolivia is both intense and widespread. La Paz and Sucre (the third-largest city) are both capitals of Bolivia. While La Paz has a large indigenous presence, of the five departments with lower indigenous populations, Sucre has the largest indigenous presence, at 22%.

	Bolivia	**Ecuador**	**Peru**
Population (millions)[25]	8.3	14.0	28.2
Indigenous languages - Number[26]	32	13	85
Indigenous population[27]	71%	43%	47%
Percentage of the population under 19 years of age[28]	49%	43%	41%
Urbanization	62%	62%	76%

Table 4 Sociodemographic data on Bolivia, Ecuador, and Peru

In the case of Ecuador, the national census puts the indigenous population of the country at 6.8%, whereas UNICEF (2004) places it at 43% (based on data for 1991; see Table 4). Analyzing the census data by departments, we find that, of the 22 departments, the five with the largest concentrations of Quechua speakers together represent 81% of the total Quechua population. These are Chimborazo, Imbabura, Cotopaxi, Tungunahua, and Napo. The other two departments with Quechua populations are Cañar and Pichincha (where the capital, Quito, is located). The Quechua population constitutes half of the indigenous population in Ecuador.

With respect to Peru, census data in the last decades also show falling percentages for indigenous-language monolinguals – in the last census, the figure was roughly 10% – whereas the numbers of bilingual speakers seem to have remained stable since the 1940s, at around 15-17%. Most researchers rely on these numbers to support the claim that Quechua (or Aymara) is slowly disappearing, and interpret bilingualism as a transitional stage towards a complete shift to Spanish. However, examining other numbers in the census data, such as the total population under 19 years of age by region, we find that this population is quite large, at 41% (though it is even larger in Ecuador, at 43%, and in Bolivia, where it is 49%), and mostly rural. This suggests that there is a robust young indigenous language-speaking population. Moreover, census data show that Quechua (or Aymara, in Aymara areas) is spoken by high percentages of children older than 5 years of age, such as in Apurímac (72%), Puno (66%), Huancavelica (65%), Ayacucho (64%), and Cuzco (52%).

Detailed census data seem to suggest, instead of a shift towards Spanish, the growth of a stable bilingualism in Ecuador (e.g. Haboud 1998), Bolivia (e.g. Sichra 2003), and Peru (e.g. Carbajal 2006). This suggests that we need to understand internal migration, from rural to urban centers, as enhancing bilingualism and, in particular, the use of the two languages. In Peru, a rural country in 1940 (65% rural), but a highly urbanized country (76% urban) in 2007, Firestone (2006) finds that Quechua use is present in public Andean urban centers at the interactional and social-network levels, suggesting that the construction of a new urban Andean identity is taking place, with Quechua being part of this identity.

The use of indigenous languages in public domains is increasing at different rates in different regions (cf. Albó 2004; Luyxk 2004; Gleich 2009). The strict diglossic functions of Spanish and Quechua reported in earlier studies in the Andes seem to be weakening. Instead, bilingualism without diglossia seems to be incipiently emerging in the Andean region, as is the case in some regions of the US Southwest where bilingualism is emerging as stable (Mejías et al. 2003). As researchers, we need to acknowledge this emerging change that is taking place in the Andes in order to modify our parameters and criteria of analysis (cf. García 2005:147-148; Howard 2007:15,20).

As speakers of different varieties of Andean Spanish and non-Andean Spanish are coming together in the urban centers, Andean migrants are forming new social networks, including those with other migrants with whom they share linguistic and cultural similarities (e.g. through the emerging regional clubs in Peruvian cities). In these new spaces, Andean Spanish is the variety most frequently used when speaking Spanish. This variety is heard in schools, in markets, on national television broadcasts and radio programs, in emerging regional restaurants, during religious practices, etc. (cf. Gugenberger 2005; Escobar 2007c; Godenzzi 2008). This widening presence of Andeans and Andean Spanish in everyday life is changing attitudes. Although upper levels of the non-Andean Spanish monolingual society might still disapprove of and discriminate against – in their attitudes if not in their overt behavior – indigenous languages, Andeans, and Andean Spanish (cf. Placencia 2008), change is slowly taking place in attitudes toward Quechua, toward Andean migrants, and toward Andean Spanish.

What seems to be of special interest is the wider acceptance of Quechua and Andean Spanish in cultural contexts, such as in modern popular music. Quechua rock groups – some, such as Uchpa, enjoying international reputations – and first- and second-generation young migrants who are singing in both Spanish and Quechua are emerging every day. Quechua and Andean Spanish are no longer restricted to being used in traditional folkloric music or in techno-cumbia, but are being freely used in popular music, which appeals to the young. Singers such as Damaris, Mac Salvador, and William Luna are emerging as part of a new generation of urban bilingual singers who speak both Quechua and educated Andean Spanish.[29] In short, the use of Quechua, and more importantly, its embrace by singers and young popular music groups, seems to be a growing trend.

The ensuing dialect contact between Andean and non-Andean varieties of Spanish throughout the urban Andes is changing the sociolinguistic profile of the Andean countries (Escobar 2007c; Gugenbeger 2007; Escobar and Wölck 2009). Daily contact between monolingual and bilingual varieties of Andean and non-Andean Spanish is taking place not only in schools, at work, and in the markets, but also in hospitals and banks and in other social venues. As a consequence, the social value of Quechua and of Andean culture is increasing (cf. Sichra 2005; Hornberger 2009). By extension, Andean Spanish is also acquiring positive social value or, at the very least, the negative value it once had is diminishing for much of the population. The diffusion of Andean varieties of Spanish is a reality in the Andean countries.

Recent immigration patterns from Latin America are taking Andean Spanish speakers outside the Andean countries, mainly to the United States and Spain, which are the most frequent destinations for Latin Americans (CELADE 2006). In 2007, Spain had an immigrant population of 12.2%, which grew mainly in the previous 10 years (INE 2009:19). Latin Americans represent 40% o this population, with Ecuador, Colombia, Argentina, Bolivia and Peru being the most common origin countries presented in descending order (INE 2009:25). As a consequence, significant Andean Spanish-speaking communities exist now in Catalan-speaking regions (Valencia, Balearic Islands, Barcelona), Madrid, Canary Islands and Murcia, in descending order (INE 2009:19). Sociolinguistic research on the dialect contact between Andean and Peninsular varieties of Spanish is incipient (e.g. for Valencia, see Calvo 2007, and

for Madrid, see Palacios 2007). In the United States, the Latino population represents 14.8% of the total population in 2006 (U.S. Census Bureau 2007). Although the Spanish-speaking population in the United States is represented mainly in the Mexican variety, at the local level, Andean Spanish-speaking communities exist in Chicago (mainly Ecuadoreans), New York and New Jersey. This is an area of study that is now opening up, as most of this immigration is very recent. However, the potential implications for dialect contact and dialect diffusion are high.

4 Final remarks

The development of contact features and of contact varieties are possible in contact situations when the appropriate social conditions are met (Weinreich 1953; Winford 2003). Undoubtedly, different types of bilinguals can exist in these situations as well. In the Andean region, we find native speakers of Quechua (or Aymara) who are second-language speakers of Spanish alongside native speakers of both Quechua and Spanish (2L1) and monolingual speakers of Andean Spanish. Features found in monolingual and 2L1 bilingual speakers of Spanish in the Andes are those that are considered part of the norm of what is called the Andean Spanish dialect. Which Andean contact features do not 'make' it into this dialect is a question researchers are still trying to answer. Meanwhile, we find that features characteristic of second-language processes, known as first-language interference features, are not found in the speech of speakers of Andean Spanish (see introduction to section 2).

There is much debate in the literature as to whether features of Andean Spanish are indeed products of the contact situation. This debate is especially strong when the analysis refers to features found in some other variety of Spanish, either dialectal or historical. Two examples are the assibilated /r/, which is also found in modern central Mexican Spanish and in northern regions of Spain, and the redundant possessive, which can be found in Spanish varieties of Mexico and Guatemala, but was also characteristic of 15th and 16th-century Spanish. Comparisons between different varieties of Spanish spoken in Peru (and elsewhere), however, show that the patterns of use are not the same, despite the fact that there are overlaps (e.g. see for: possessives, Escobar 1994a; present perfect, Howe 2006; leísmo, Klee and Caravedo, 2006; estar + GERUND, Escobar 2009; diminutive, Clements 2009:186-187). To help explain the role of contact in the emergence of these contact features, more comparative studies between types of speakers are needed, which include more detailed research on dialectal and historical as well as contemporary forms of both languages, informed by what is known about cross-linguistic tendencies (cf. Heine and Kuteva 2005, 2007; Traugott and Dasher 2005).

Which Andean Spanish features spread to other non-Andean varieties is also a question researchers are trying to answer. Continuous population movements are changing the sociolinguistic profiles of the Andean nations. This phenomenon (which is not limited to the Andean region – cf. Gugenberger 2007; Zimmermann 2009) is contributing to the spread of Andean Spanish features to non-Andean Spanish speakers. This is particularly relevant in the case of Peru, where the Spanish variety of the capital, Lima, is a non-Andean variety and serves as the country's norm. Thirty-seven years ago, as reported in the Census of 1972, 45% of the Peruvian population lived in the sierra – the home of Andean Spanish – and 45% lived along the coast – the home of Ribereño Spanish, a non-Andean variety. By the census of 2007, 55% of the population lives along the coast, with Lima and the immediately surrounding region home to 33% of the national total. As a consequence of this shift in population and the extensive bilingualism that is found in modern urban environments, the social conditions are present for Andean Spanish features to become part of the Peruvian norm (cf. Escobar 2007b, 2009). As speakers of Andean varieties of Spanish belong to a large range of social and educational levels, dialect contact occurs at all levels of society in everyday life and especially

in places of work. Workplace environments, in addition, are conducive to high accommodation of linguistic features (Cameron 2005).

The social ecology of the Peruvian case can be viewed as a test case for the spread of Andean Spanish features. While stigmatized assibilated /r/ is found not to spread, the use of /ʎ/ does (de los Heros 2001:91-93; Klee and Caravedo 2006).[30] In the case of leísmo, both Klee and Caravedo (2005, 2006) and Paredes and Valdez (2008) find this feature in second-generation Andeans in Lima. Further research on these two features will need to take into consideration the recent and considerable immigration of speakers of varieties of Peninsular Spanish (who use these features) to Andean countries, as growth in Latin America has been accompanied by heavy investment by Spanish companies – in communications (e.g. Telefónica), banking (e.g. Banco Santander, BBVA), transport (e.g. Ferrovial, Cintra), and energy (e.g. Repsol, Endesa, Iberdrola) – in the last 15 years (The Economist 2009).

When semantic and pragmatic linguistic variables are considered in analyses, we find that features that seem to be spreading fall within what Heine and Kuteva (2005) call patterns of use (e.g. Andean intonational contours, pragmatic-oriented word order patterns, the favoring of analytical verbal expressions) and conceptual transfer of grammatical categories (e.g. evidential functions of the present perfect and the pluperfect estar+GERUND, the use of the diminutive for modesty and deferential courtesy and the grammaticalization of adverbial expressions).

Only time will tell what degree of influence Andean Spanish will have in the varieties spoken beyond the region in which it originated. In the meantime, we are witness to the change in progress of the linguistic and sociolinguistic profile of the contact of Spanish and Quechua, which merits more detailed attention.

NOTES

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[1] Other Andean languages are Chipaya (Cerrón Palomino 2006), Callawalla (considered a mixed language of Quechua and Puquina; Etnologue), and Uru (spoken by 2 speakers in 2000; Ethnologue).

[2] Numbers of speakers have been rounded from information provided in Ethnologue and/or the Census (for Bolivia, Peru, Chile, Colombia), and a special survey of the Argentinean Census office for 2004-2005, targeting Indigenous language-speaking populations.

[3] Name given to the variety of Quechua spoken in Ecuador.

[4] Due to limitations of space, the case of Ecuadorean Media Lengua will not be discussed here (for information see Muysken 1985, 1994, 1997, 2000; Gómez Rendón 2005, 2008; Dikker 2008; Shappeck 2010).

[5] As is already the case with Kawki, Uru, and Callawalla.

[6] Alberto Escobar (1978) presented the first dialectological characterization of Andean Spanish. In his study of Peruvian Spanish varieties, Andean Spanish is distinguished from two non-Andean Peruvian dialects, Ribereño Spanish, spoken in the northern and central coast, and Amazonean Spanish.

[7] References for Ecuador include Toscano Mateus (1953), Moya (1981), and Muysken (1984). References for Peru include A. Escobar (1978), Cerrón Palomino (2003), A.M. Escobar (1990, 1994a, 2000) and Godenzzi (1986, 1991, 1995). References for Bolivia include Mendoza (1991a, 1991b). References for Northern Argentina include Fernández Lavaque (1998b); Fernández Laváque and del Valle Rodas (1998a, 1998b).

[8] Valdez (2009) reports additional borrowings found in monolingual speakers of Andean Spanish in Cuzco, shuktúrate ‘siéntate’ ‘(you) sit down’, shimba ‘braid’. Baldoceda’s study (2007) suggests that new borrowings are extending to the written media.

[9] It is more widely accepted in Ecuador (Argüello 1984; Gómez Rendón 2005), although Gómez (2003) finds that this variant is disappearing in the speech of young Andean Ecuadoreans. The assibilated /r/ is also found in Costa Rica, Guatemala, and Paraguay (Lipski 1994).

[10] References for /s/ are for Peru (A. Escobar 1978; Klee and Caravedo 2006), Ecuador (Moya 1981), and Bolivia (Mendoza 1991a, 199b). Maintenance of /s/ in word final position is also characteristic of Mexican and Paraguayan Spanish.

[11] References for unstressed vowels are for Ecuador (Moya 1981), and Peru (A. Escobar 1978; Godenzzi 1991; Delforge 2008; O'Rourke 2008). Weakening of unstressed vowels is also found in Mexican Spanish (Lipski 1994).

[12] Based on references for Ecuador (Toscano Mateus 1953; Guevara 1972; Muysken 1984; Haboud 1998, 2005; Goméz 2003), Peru (Benvenutto Murieta 1936; Alberto Escobar 1978; Godenzzi 1991; Escobar 1994a, 1994b, 1997, 2000, 2001; de los Heros 2001; Klee and Caravedo 2006; Paredes and Valdez 2008) Bolivia (Mendoza 1991a, 1991b; Pfänder 2002), northern Argentina (Fernández Laváque and del Valle Rodas 1998a; Fernández Laváque 1998d) and from Lipski (1994), Granda (1999, 2001), and Olbertz and Muysken (2005).

[13] The use of conditional in conditional sentences and the omission of third person clitic pronouns in some contexts is also found in Basque Spanish.

[14] Based on references for Peru (Cerrón Palomino 1976; A. Escobar 1978; Soto Ruiz 1983; Escobar 1994b, 1997; Ocampo and Klee 1995; Granda 2001:145-165; Howe 2006), Bolivia (Hardman 1981, 1982; Mendoza 1991a), Ecuador (Toscano 1953; Bustamante 1991), and Argentina (Fernández Laváque 1998c).

[15] It has been reported for Andean Spanish spoken in Peru (Escobar 1994b, 1997; Sánchez 2003; Howe 2006; Jara 2006; Manley 2007), Ecuador (Bustamante 1991), Bolivia (Stratford 1991), and northern Argentina (see examples on page 71 of Fernández Laváque 1998c).

[16] Wölck (2009) suggests the use of no in final utterance position to mark dubitative function.

[17] References are for Ecuador (Muysken 1985; Muntendam 2009), Peru (Pozzi Escot 1972; Lozano 1975; Cerrón 1976; A. Escobar 1978:108-110; A.M. Escobar 1994a, 2000; Ocampo and Klee 1995; Sánchez 2003; Muntendam 2009), Bolivia (Mendoza 1991a; Pfänder 2002; Muntendam 2009), and northern Argentina (Vargas Orellana 1998). Additional typological Object-Verb patterns are found in regions with high presence of second language speakers. These patterns involve high frequencies of the following orders: Adjective-Noun, Subordinate clause – Main clause, Possessor-Possessed.

[18] References for this characteristic include: Schumacher (1975), Haboud (1998, 2005), Mendoza (1991a), Niño Murcia (1995), Granda (1999, 2001), Pfänder (2002), Escobar (2000) Olbertz (2003, 2008).

[19] Other studies which have provided similar list of criteria are Fishman (1991), and Grenoble and Whaley (2006).

[20] Alderretes and Albarracín (2004) report that shift to Spanish is prominent in Santiago del Estero (Argentina).

[21] López and Sichra (2008:197-2005) find that the indigenous communities are starting to see the schools as a means of continuity (of their culture) and of change (towards learning Spanish) at the same time.

[22] Although indigenous organizations also exist in Peru, they have yet to achieve the degree of political power that their counterparts have in the neighboring countries.

[23] The Latin American countries with highest percentages of indigenous population are Guatemala, Bolivia, Mexico, Peru, and Ecuador (López and Sichra 2008).

[24] Lower percentages of indigenous population are found in the remaining four departments of Santa Cruz (22%, the largest city after La Paz), Tarija (18%), Beni (14%) and Pando (12%).

[25] Population data is according to the last census in Bolivia (2001) and Peru (2007), and to the official census government website of Ecuador.

[26] Data regarding the number of languages is following the Ethnologue.

[27] Information is taken from the Unicef data for 1990 (2004). However, the Bolivia 2001 Census puts the indigenous population at 50% (62% of those older than 15 years old; Gleich 2009). The Ecuadorean 2001 census puts the indigenous population at 6.8%. Information for Peru is not available for the 2007 census.

[28] Data is taken from the 2001census for Bolivia, the 2001 census for Ecuador, and the 2007 Census for Peru.

[29] Damaris won the most important Latin American Music Festival in Viña del Mar, Chile in 2008 with a song in Quechua and Spanish.[Thank you goes to Amy Firestone who made me aware of Luna.]

[30] In Ecuador, however, Gómez (2003) finds that both linguistic variants are disappearing from the speech of young Andeans, with speakers favoring the coastal norm.

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